

Summary

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Headline conclusions

- **CFM is broadly working, but governance is a concern and oversight from the Forestry Department is weak and insufficient.** Clear majorities of communities report reduced deforestation, lower fire frequency and recovering wildlife populations under CFM. They also reported increases in employment and in some cases incomes. However, many CFMGs are not following legally required governance processes, such annual reporting and financial record keeping, as well as respecting term limits and the need to hold elections. Support to CFMGs has mainly come from conservation NGOs and carbon developers. Forestry Department (FD) district staff rarely visit, national record keeping is not fit for task and enforcement of required legal processes is non-existent.
- **Satellite evidence confirms reduction in fires and biomass gains.** Remote sensing analysis independently corroborates community perceptions: fire incidence, burned area and fire radiative power all declined significantly following CFMG establishment, and furthermore above-ground biomass increased in both CFA cores and surrounding buffer zones.
- **Deforestation rates are low but not declining.** Tree cover loss rates within CFAs were already low before establishment and did not decrease significantly afterwards. There is a concern that deforestation may have increased in areas immediately outside CFAs. However, this result requires confirmation with alternative miombo specific remote sensing products, as global tree cover products do not perform well in savannas.
- **Credibility in carbon mitigation estimates will depend on moving to a jurisdictional approach.** Although based on a small sample of CFAs, our remote sensing analysis detected very low deforestation rates prior to establishment. This raises the worrying possibility that carbon developers are inflating deforestation rates within CFAs to generate meaningful additionality. To maintain the credibility

of Zambian carbon in global markets, it will be essential to move to a jurisdictional approach as soon as possible.

- **Governance processes are incomplete across most CFMGs.** Many CFMGs lack bank accounts, receipt books, annual workplans and business plans. Most are overdue for elections and thus non-compliant with their own by-laws. In some CFMGs, community members also complained of a lack of transparency in the conduct of CFMG business. There is a risk that without improvements to governance community support for CFM will erode and any gains made, as well as the opportunity for further gains, will be lost.
- **Quality of governance was a consistent predictor of performance.** Based on our survey data we developed a quality of governance index and used this to model outcomes across the other domains (SFM, economic transformation, and equity & inclusion). The governance index was a consistently a significant predictor of CFMG outcomes across these domains underscoring the critical importance of improving governance for better outcomes.
- **Oversight is insufficient.** The FD has a statutory duty to support and monitor CFMGs, but visits from district forest staff are infrequent across most of the country. Conservation NGOs and carbon developers partly fill this gap, but coverage is uneven and a substantial number of CFMGs receive no meaningful external support.
- **Carbon income is probably insufficient to be economically transformative.** Although approximately 80% of CFAs were established for carbon, in only about one third had community members received carbon payments at the time of the survey. Investment in carbon business models has seen employment grow under CFM, but this is concentrated in low-paying roles such as HFOs or community scouts, is male-dominated, and is absent in many communities. Carbon developers have also invested in climate smart agriculture and agroforestry, but to date the impact on livelihoods has been limited.
- **The economic potential of CFM is massively under-realised.** Aside from carbon developers, only 11 out of the 75 CFMGs surveyed were partnering with private for-profit enterprises, and these were all honey off-takers. Beyond carbon and honey, the considerable value of Zambia's forest products was almost entirely untapped. Through developing partnerships with private off-takers, CFMGs can achieve a far more diversified economic model which is necessary for long-term viability.
- **Equity & Inclusion outcomes are broadly positive, but warning signals exist.** Most female FGD groups report equitable benefit sharing and meaningful participation in decision making — a more positive picture than was perhaps

expected. However, youth groups are consistently more critical of CFM. In a minority of communities there are indications of elite capture, lack of transparency and exclusion that must be addressed.

- **Communities are clear-eyed about both gains and gaps.** Community feedback on what is working (see Discussion chapter) matches the quantitative evidence. Their identification of what needs improving provides a practical agenda for action.

Survey details

Community forest management (CFM) has expanded rapidly in Zambia since receiving enabling regulations in 2018. As of January 2025, 351 Community Forest Management Groups (CFMGs) preside over approximately 9.4 million hectares of community forests across all ten provinces.

In contrast to many other countries where CFM involves transfer of primarily domestic user rights for forest products, Zambia’s legal framework provides the lawful transfer of exclusive economic rights over forest resources to CFMGs. This means communities gain not only the right to use and manage their forest, but also the right to benefit from economic activities, including markets for ecosystem services. The opportunity to participate in voluntary carbon markets has made Zambia an attractive destination for carbon finance and climate-focused investment. The combination of secure tenure and carbon income potential has driven a rapid expansion of CFM with most of the 351 CFMGs having been established in the past three years, often with significant external investment and technical support from carbon developers or conservation partners. However, this also represents a significant vulnerability. The rapid expansion has been substantially fuelled by external investment rather than by domestic government commitments. If carbon markets contract or if carbon developers reduce their engagement, CFM expansion could slow markedly and existing CFMGs could face sustainability challenges without diversified income streams or consistent government support.

This report presents findings from a survey of 80 CFMGs conducted across eight provinces in 2024. The two provinces omitted — Luapula and Copperbelt — had very few CFMGs at the time of the survey. Five CFMGs included in the original sample were found to be defunct and so were excluded from further analysis, leaving a final sample of 75 CFMGs. The sample spans a wide range of community forest area (CFA) sizes (from approximately 20 ha to over 80,000 ha) and ages (from one to approximately seven years since establishment; [age distribution](#)), and reflects the national age structure of the programme, in which most CFAs are fewer than three years old.

The survey employed a multi-perspective focus group discussion (FGD) design. Four structured FGDs were conducted at each CFA: with the CFMG executive committee, community

men, community women and community youth ([survey coverage](#)). This design enables the systematic comparison of perspectives across stakeholder groups. Near-complete coverage of all four FGD types across the 75 CFAs means that differences in responses among groups can be interpreted with confidence. Individual interviews were conducted with CFMG executive members, District Forest Officers (DFOs), traditional leaders, forest user-group chairs and external partners (e.g. conservation NGOs, carbon developers, NTFP off-takers), providing an additional layer of evidence from a range of vantage points.

The geographic spread of the sample — covering Northwestern, Western, Lusaka, Northern, Muchinga, Eastern, Southern and Central provinces ([coverage by province](#)) — ensures that findings reflect diverse ecological, economic and socio-political contexts. The gender breakdown of interviewees is male-biased, as expected given that men dominate most CFMG stakeholder roles. However, the dedicated female FGD conducted in each CFA ensured that women’s perspectives were systematically captured.

In short, the sample provides a robust, nationally representative foundation for drawing inferences about CFM implementation in Zambia. The multi-perspective design is particularly well suited to examining the governance and equity dimensions of CFM, which are among the most important — and most contested — aspects of the programme.

Governance

The governance of CFMGs is assessed across five domains: legal processes, governance processes (elections, meetings, financial management), business processes (workplans, budgets, business plans), external support, and community buy-in. The most consistent pattern across all three process domains is that foundational steps have been taken by most CFMGs, but the more demanding requirements are frequently incomplete.

Legal processes are the most advanced domain. A large majority of CFMGs in the sample have obtained a recognition letter and signed a forest management agreement — the foundational steps for establishing a CFA ([legal process completion](#)). However, later and more administratively demanding processes, including the registration certificate, forest-use permit and benefit-sharing agreement, are absent in a substantial proportion. These are not minor procedural details: without a registration certificate and forest-use permit, a CFMG’s legal basis for managing its forest and excluding external actors is weakened, and its ability to negotiate with carbon buyers and other commercial partners is compromised.

Governance processes are more unevenly implemented. Most CFMGs have held at least one election and have term limits for executive officers ([election frequency](#)), and most hold CFMG meetings with reasonable frequency. However, several basic management actions are missing in a large proportion of CFMGs: bank accounts have not been opened, receipt books are not maintained, and annual financial and technical reports are rarely produced ([governance](#)

process rates). Again, these are not peripheral concerns. Without bank accounts, carbon payments and other income cannot be transparently managed. Without receipt books and financial reporting, there is no basis for demonstrating accountability to community members or external partners. The fact that most CFMGs are overdue for elections is of particular concern. Timely elections are a basic requirement of the CFMG by-laws and overdue elections undermine legitimacy. In some cases, this appears to reflect deliberate retention of control in anticipation of carbon income.

Business processes are the weakest domain. Annual workplans, budgets and business plans are present in only a minority of CFMGs (business process rates). Without these planning and financial management tools, CFMGs are poorly positioned to manage resources sustainably, account for income or sustain compliance with their forest management license.

External support presents a mixed picture. Most CFMGs are rarely or never visited by DFOs, despite the statutory duty of the FD to implement the CFM policy (DFO visit frequency). This gap is partly compensated by conservation NGOs and carbon developers, many of which visit their partner CFMGs regularly. However, this support is not universal: a significant proportion of CFMGs in the sample had no external partner of any kind (external partner coverage). Where NGO or carbon developer support is present, it has funded real improvements in forest management — patrol systems, fire management and agricultural extension. The current model, in which CFM is effectively co-governed by the community and the private sector, may be adequate where active and capable partners are present, but leaves many CFMGs without meaningful support.

Interest in expanding the community forest, which is used as an indicator of community satisfaction with CFM, is highest among CFMG executives and lowest among community youth (interest in expansion by stakeholder group). Among individual interviewees, NGO representatives are significantly more enthusiastic about expansion than traditional leaders or community members. This divergence — consistent with the equity findings discussed below — suggests that CFMG leadership and external partners have a more optimistic assessment of CFM outcomes than the broader community. If not addressed, this gap risks eroding legitimacy and the long-term sustainability of CFM.

In summary, CFMG governance is still maturing. The legal framework for CFM is largely in place, but institutional and business management processes lag behind. Strengthening financial management, ensuring timely elections, expanding district forestry staff engagement and closing the gap between executive and community perspectives are essential to secure the future of CFM in Zambia.

Sustainable Forest Management

Across all SFM indicators, the evidence points to meaningful improvements under CFM. Clear majorities of community FGD groups report that deforestation has decreased ([reduced deforestation](#)), charcoal production has declined, fire frequency has fallen ([reduced fire](#)) and wildlife populations have increased ([wildlife recovery](#)) within their CFA. These are substantial changes given that, for most communities, CFM has been operating for fewer than five years.

Importantly, the large majority of FGD groups also report that deforestation and charcoal production are decreasing in areas outside their community forest ([deforestation outside CFA](#)). This indicates that CFM is not simply displacing pressure from CFAs into adjacent landscapes, but is actually generating broader environmental benefits in the surrounding area.

Community female FGD groups tend to report change in SFM outcomes more positively than other FGD types — a pattern that recurs across multiple indicators and domains. This may reflect that women, who are traditionally highly dependent on forest resources for household provisioning but have historically had limited say in management decisions, have gained meaningful voice through CFM’s formal governance structures. However, to confirm this would require further research.

Among individual interviewees, DFOs and NGO representatives tend to report somewhat more conservative assessments of positive change than community members. This may reflect a broader professional perspective on forest management, or it may reflect that these professionals are less aware of the day-to-day improvements visible to those living adjacent to the CFA. Longer-term monitoring will be required to better understand these CFM outcomes.

Restoration activities — protection of natural regeneration and, in a few cases, planting — are occurring in some CFMGs, but are not widespread ([restoration uptake](#)). Given the Zambian government’s restoration commitments and the central role that CFM could play in delivering them, this is a significant missed opportunity. A dedicated restoration component — covering natural regeneration, and planting of native and, where appropriate, exotic species — should be integrated into forest management plans for all CFMGs. Similarly, agroforestry and timber plantation establishment, which could both reduce pressure on natural forests and generate valuable additional income streams, were practised by only a small number of CFMGs.

In summary, CFM in Zambia is driving real improvements in SFM across a large majority of surveyed communities. However, these improvements are not ubiquitous. Critically, governance quality (as captured by our governance index) was a significant predictor of how positively respondents viewed SFM outcomes. Identifying under-performing CFMGs, diagnosing the causes and implementing corrective action will be essential. Equally, integrating restoration, plantation and agroforestry components into the CFM model would substantially strengthen its contribution to national SFM targets.

Remote Sensing analysis

The remote sensing analysis provides independent, satellite-based evidence on three key indicators of CFM effectiveness: fire incidence, deforestation rates and changes in above-ground biomass (AGB). The analysis uses a before-after design that compares outcomes within CFA cores before and after establishment, and with buffer zones as a spatial control and assessment of leakage.

Across all three fire metrics — fire detection density ([Figure](#)), burned area fraction ([Figure](#)) and fire radiative power ([Figure](#)) — there were statistically significant reductions within CFA cores following establishment. These results constitute robust, multi-indicator satellite confirmation that CFM has led to meaningful improvements in fire management at within the CFA. Importantly, fires in buffer areas also declined, indicating improvements at the landscape scale. These results are consistent with community perceptions documented in the SFM chapter, where a clear majority of FGD groups reported that fire frequency was declining both inside and outside their CFA.

According to the Hansen Global Forest Canopy dataset, tree cover loss rates within CFA cores did not change significantly following establishment ([tree cover loss](#)). Although the directional trend was in the right direction, the change was statistically modest. This result may initially appear contradictory given the strongly positive community perceptions, but several explanations are plausible. First, baseline deforestation rates within CFA cores were already very low (median of approximately 0.14% per year) before establishment, leaving limited scope for measurable further decline. Second, tree cover data are often unreliable at small spatial scales in miombo woodlands, where canopy cover is naturally sparse and assessments can vary seasonally due to the relative strength of the grass versus tree canopy signal. Third, communities may be perceiving real improvements through indirect indicators — such as reduced charcoal production, fewer incursions or recovery of the forest understorey — that are not captured by the canopy loss metric. According to the Hansen dataset there was a significant increase in tree cover loss in the 1 km buffer zones (from a median of 0.26% before CFA establishment to 0.49% afterwards) around CFAs. However, this should be interpreted cautiously given the measurement reliability issues noted above. Continued monitoring over a longer period or development of miombo specific tree cover analyses are recommended, before making solid conclusions.

The fact that our analysis detected very low rates of deforestation in CFAs prior to establishment is concerning. Although our analysis was based on a small sample and a relatively short observation window, we would have expected a higher rate of deforestation before establishment and a significant reduction in that rate following establishment. It is difficult to see from our results how carbon developers can be justifying any meaningful additionality from their projects. Moving to a jurisdictional approach will be essential to maintain confidence in Zambian carbon.

Above-ground biomass increased significantly in both CFA cores and buffer zones following

CFMG establishment ([above-ground biomass](#)). For dry seasonal forests such as the miombo woodlands that dominate Zambia’s community forests, biomass is likely a more sensitive and reliable indicator of ecological condition than canopy cover loss. Biomass monitoring can detect incremental changes caused by shifts in tree recruitment and growth, which are not captured by canopy cover metrics. The observed biomass gains are consistent with — and likely substantially attributable to — the documented reductions in fire disturbance. Fire both kills trees directly and suppresses woody recruitment. Even modest reductions in annual burning can produce measurable biomass accumulation in a few years.

In summary, the remote sensing evidence presents a nuanced but largely positive picture of CFM effectiveness. CFM has demonstrably reduced fire disturbance and produced measurable gains in above-ground biomass across both CFAs and in their immediate surroundings. Canopy cover was stable within CFAs, but may be decreasing in the buffer areas around CFAs — further monitoring of the situation is advised. While CFM may increase protection of CFAs, the economic drivers of deforestation — primarily charcoal production and agricultural clearance — are not directly addressed by CFM at larger spatial scales and require other interventions.

Economic transformation

The economic outcomes of CFM are real but narrowly distributed, and the full potential remains largely untapped. The analysis covers five domains: access to forest resources, employment, carbon income, non-timber forest products and other income-generating activities, and opportunity costs.

Most FGD groups and individual interviewees indicate that CFM has not increased access to natural resources for either household use or sale. This is perhaps unsurprising, as communities were harvesting forest products before CFM was established. However, approximately one third of respondent groups felt that access had improved, likely reflecting the formalisation of community rights and establishment of user-groups.

Employment has grown under CFM ([employment by FGD group](#)), but the picture is more complicated than the headline numbers suggest. The most significant employment gains are in the roles of Honorary Forest Officers (HFOs) and community scouts — positions that are low-paying and predominantly male. Community female FGD groups were the most likely to report no change in formal employment and community youth groups were the most likely to report gains — a difference that likely reflects the demographics of the HFO and community scout roles. While new employment is a genuine achievement, the scale and quality of that employment currently falls well short of what a thriving forest-based economy should deliver.

Carbon income is the centrepiece of the CFM economic model in Zambia, and its impact is significant where it has materialised. Approximately one third of CFMG communities in the sample had received carbon payments at the time of the survey ([carbon finance by province](#)).

The activities funded by carbon developers — patrol systems, fire management, climate-smart agriculture extension — also represent an injection of capital into forest margin communities. However, the fact that a substantial number of community youth FGD groups were unaware of carbon agreements ([carbon awareness by FGD group](#)) is concerning. It suggests that carbon developers may not have conducted a fully inclusive FPIC process and that CFMG executives may not be communicating adequately with their communities. This information asymmetry is a governance risk that could erode community support for CFM over time.

Beyond carbon and honey, the economic potential of Zambia’s community forests is almost entirely untapped. A wide variety of forest products are harvested from community forests — including timber, wild fruits, medicinal plants, mushrooms, caterpillars, bamboo, resins and thatching grass — but overwhelmingly for household use or local sale with minimal value addition. Only a small number of CFMGs (15%) are partnering with any kind of enterprise ([enterprise collaboration](#)), and where they are, it is almost exclusively for honey. The communities themselves identify a rich diversity of products — prominently including timber and wild fruits as well as mushrooms and honey — that could be developed into community enterprises ([unrealised opportunities](#)). The potential to layer multiple income streams on top of one another, supply urban and regional markets with value-added products, and create more stable income for community members is substantial. CFM has the legal and institutional scaffolding to support this kind of diversified forest economy. What is lacking is the investment, technical support and market linkages needed to activate it.

Opportunity costs of CFM — foregone income, restricted access to previously used areas, time and resource costs of participation — are recognised by communities ([opportunity costs by FGD group](#)), and are important to acknowledge. Opportunity costs fall most heavily on households that were most dependent on forest clearing or other activities that are now restricted, and these households are disproportionately among the most economically vulnerable. Properly accounting for and mitigating opportunity costs — including through explicit provision in benefit-sharing arrangements and business plans — should be a standard part of CFMG management.

In summary, CFM has achieved real but limited economic transformation. The economic model currently relies too heavily on carbon and a single NTFP (honey), leaving most communities with a narrow income base that is vulnerable to market fluctuations and partner decisions. A more diversified economic model — one that exploits the full range of forest products, develops community enterprises, and actively links communities to urban, regional and international markets — is both achievable and necessary.

Equity and Inclusion

The equity and inclusion chapter investigates a wide range of outcomes: benefit sharing, opportunity costs, gender equity, transparency, grievance and redress, and poverty impacts. The overarching finding is that equity outcomes under CFM are broadly positive, but the picture is uneven and contains important warning signals.

The most striking pattern across all equity indicators is a systematic divergence in perspective by FGD group. Community female and youth groups consistently report more negative assessments of equity outcomes than CFMG executive and community male groups — across virtually every indicator, including equitable benefit sharing (Figure), women benefiting from CFM (Figure), women’s participation in decision making (Figure), and transparency in benefit sharing (Figure). This divergence could reflect information asymmetries. CFMG executives, who are better informed about formal governance arrangements, may genuinely perceive a more equitable distribution than is visible to other community members. Alternatively — and perhaps more plausibly — it may reflect that the benefits and costs of CFM are in fact distributed unevenly, in ways that are visible to those outside the executive circle but not acknowledged by those within it. Furthermore, elite capture and corruption cannot be ruled out in a subset of cases.

Notwithstanding these concerns, the overall picture is more positive than might have been expected. A clear majority of all FGD groups — including community female groups — report that benefits are being shared equitably and that women benefit from CFM. Most female groups state that women do not disproportionately bear opportunity costs and that women participate in CFM decision making. This is an encouraging finding in a country where natural resource management has traditionally been the purview of male community members. The formal governance structures mandated by CFM — including elections, executive positions with required female representation, documented benefit-sharing arrangements, and formation of user-groups — may have given women a degree of recognition and voice that they did not previously have. In this respect, CFM may have served as a tool for institutional gender mainstreaming in forest management. However, the impacts of CFM on gender equity requires further study to understand the conditions around positive and negative outcomes.

Community youth groups present a consistently more critical perspective across all domains. Youth are the most sceptical about CFM’s benefits, the most concerned about elite capture and transparency, and the most likely to report that CFM has not delivered meaningful livelihood improvements for their demographic. The formalisation of CFM may have worked against youth empowerment to a degree by entrenching control by older community members who dominate community management bodies, such as CFMGs. Unless addressed, youth dissatisfaction poses a genuine long-term risk to community support for CFM.

Carbon benefit-sharing agreements are structured almost entirely around revenue sharing with little provision for employment, infrastructure investment or targeted livelihood support, other than climate smart agriculture. While revenue sharing delivers a direct financial return when

payments materialise, communities that have not yet received payments — which is the majority — have little tangible benefit to show. Diversifying the components of company-community agreements to include employment targets, skills development, and livelihood support would broaden both the distribution of benefits and community buy-in across diverse stakeholder groups.

The poverty impacts of CFM — primarily through increased household incomes and new income-generating activities ([poverty impact](#)) — are broadly consistent with the economic transformation findings. They are real but very limited, and the barriers that prevent the most vulnerable households from benefiting, such as low social capital and sometimes physical capacity (e.g. learning disabled or physically disabled) are structural and will require deliberate policy attention to overcome.

In summary, CFM appears to have made meaningful progress on equity and inclusion, particularly with respect to women’s voice in forest management. However, the divergence between the perspectives of community female and youth groups on one side and CFMG executives and males on the other is the most important equity signal from this survey. Strengthening transparency, grievance and redress mechanisms, ensuring that youth groups are meaningfully engaged in benefit sharing, establishing programmes for the most vulnerable community members and monitoring for elite capture are essential to ensuring CFM delivers equitable outcomes across the full diversity of community stakeholders.